

PLANNING IN TEACHING

A Full Course Lecture for Educators

Teacher Professional Development Programme

COURSE OVERVIEW AND OBJECTIVES

Planning is the invisible architecture of excellent teaching. Every outstanding lesson, unit, and curriculum that students experience is the visible surface of a much deeper structure of deliberate, principled, and systematic professional thought. Teachers who plan well do not simply know what they will do next — they understand why they are doing it, for whom, toward what end, and with what evidence they will know whether they have succeeded.

Yet planning is among the most undervalued and misunderstood of teaching's professional demands. It is often reduced to the filling in of lesson plan templates, treated as administrative compliance rather than intellectual craft. This course restores planning to its rightful place at the heart of professional teaching practice. It examines planning at every level — from the broad sweep of curriculum mapping to the minute-by-minute structure of individual lessons — and connects each level to the research evidence on what makes planning genuinely effective.

By the end of this lecture, participants will be able to:

1. Articulate the purpose and value of systematic planning at every level of teaching.
2. Distinguish between long-range, medium-range, and short-range planning and understand how they interconnect.
3. Write high-quality learning objectives using established taxonomic frameworks.
4. Design coherent, evidence-informed lesson plans using recognised frameworks.
5. Apply backward design principles to unit and curriculum planning.
6. Integrate formative assessment into the planning cycle.
7. Adapt and differentiate plans in response to learner diversity and real-time classroom data.

8. Develop habits of reflective planning that improve practice over time.

PART ONE: THE NATURE AND PURPOSE OF PLANNING

1.1 Why Planning Matters

Planning is the bridge between curriculum — what society has decided students should learn — and instruction — what actually happens between teacher and learner in the classroom. Without thoughtful planning, even the most knowledgeable and charismatic teacher is likely to produce learning that is fragmented, inequitable, and unmeasured. With excellent planning, even a teacher of modest natural gifts can deliver coherent, purposeful, and effective instruction.

Research consistently demonstrates the relationship between planning quality and teaching effectiveness. Yinger (1980) described planning as 'the primary vehicle through which teachers exert control over their professional environment'. Clark and Peterson (1986), in their landmark review of teacher planning research, found that planning influenced the content taught, the sequence of instruction, the time allocated to different learning activities, and the quality of teacher-student interaction. Planning is not bureaucratic overhead — it is professional thinking made tangible.

"Give me six hours to chop down a tree and I will spend the first four sharpening the axe." — Abraham Lincoln (on the relationship between preparation and performance)

1.2 What Planning Is — and Is Not

A common misconception among beginning teachers is that planning means writing a lesson plan. Experienced teachers understand that planning is a complex, multi-layered cognitive activity that occurs across many timescales and involves many types of professional knowledge simultaneously.

Planning involves: anticipating what students know and do not yet know; selecting and sequencing content for maximum coherence and cognitive accessibility; choosing and designing learning activities that will produce engagement and understanding;

determining how learning will be assessed; preparing for the diversity of learners in the room; and imagining and preparing for what might go wrong.

Equally important is understanding what planning is not. Planning is not a script. The best-planned lesson is a point of departure, not a contract. The research of Philip Jackson (1968) distinguished between preactive teaching (planning before instruction) and interactive teaching (the moment-by-moment decisions made during instruction). Good planning creates the conditions for excellent interactive teaching — but it does not replace it. The mark of a truly expert planner is not rigid adherence to the plan but the capacity to depart from it wisely when the evidence of student learning demands it.

1.3 Levels of Planning

Teaching requires planning at multiple interconnected levels. Each level provides context and direction for the levels below it, and each is informed and revised by what is learned at the levels above.

1.3.1 Long-Range Planning: Curriculum Mapping

Long-range planning — An Example is the Annual plan - typically spanning a full academic year or a multi-year programme — establishes the broad goals, content priorities, and sequencing of a course or curriculum. Curriculum mapping, popularised by Heidi Hayes Jacobs, involves charting what is taught, when it is taught, how it is assessed, and how different units and subjects connect — horizontally (across subjects at the same year level) and vertically (within a subject across year levels).

Long-range planning addresses questions such as: What are the essential understandings and enduring questions of this subject? What knowledge and skills must students develop by the end of this year? How will units build on each other? Where are the connections to other subjects and to students' lives beyond school? How will the year's learning prepare students for subsequent learning?

1.3.2 Medium-Range Planning: Unit Design

Unit planning — An example is the Semester Plan - typically spanning six or more weeks — is the level at which curriculum intentions are translated into coherent sequences of lessons organised around a central question, concept, or skill. A well-designed unit has clear goals, a logical sequence of learning experiences, multiple opportunities for

formative assessment, and culminating assessment tasks that require students to demonstrate their learning in meaningful, integrated ways.

Unit planning is widely regarded as the level at which the most consequential professional planning decisions are made. Individual lessons are the basic building blocks, but it is at the unit level that teachers make the decisions — about sequence, assessment design, and the integration of knowledge and skill — that most powerfully shape student learning.

1.3.3 Short-Range Planning: Lesson Design

Lesson planning — the design of individual forty-five to ninety minute instructional episodes — is the most familiar level of planning and the one most often discussed in teacher education. A well-designed lesson has clear learning intentions and success criteria, a logical and paced sequence of learning activities, appropriate opportunities for student thinking and practice, embedded formative assessment, and a purposeful conclusion that consolidates and connects learning.

The lesson plan is a professional tool, not an administrative form. Its primary purpose is to guide the teacher's thinking, not to satisfy an administrator's requirement. A plan written with genuine professional intentionality — asking at every step 'Why am I doing this? What learning will it produce? How will I know?' — is qualitatively different from one written to fulfil a requirement.

PART TWO: WRITING EFFECTIVE LEARNING OBJECTIVES

2.1 The Centrality of Learning Objectives

Learning objectives — clear, specific statements of what students will know, understand, or be able to do as a result of a lesson or unit — are the single most important planning decision a teacher makes. Every other planning decision — what activities to design, what resources to select, what assessments to use — should flow from and serve the learning objectives. A plan without clear objectives is a set of activities in search of a purpose.

Yet many teachers write objectives that are vague, activity-focused, or unmeasurable. 'Students will learn about photosynthesis.' 'Students will explore World War Two.' 'Students will practise fractions.' These are not learning objectives — they are topic labels.

They tell us what students will encounter, not what they will understand or be able to do. The difference matters enormously, because a clear objective specifies not only what will be taught but how learning will be recognised and assessed.

2.2 Bloom's Taxonomy of Educational Objectives

Benjamin Bloom and his colleagues (1956) developed the most widely used framework for classifying learning objectives — a hierarchical taxonomy organising cognitive learning into six levels, subsequently revised by Anderson and Krathwohl (2001):

9. Remembering: Recalling facts, terms, concepts, and procedures from memory. (Define, list, recall, identify, name)
10. Understanding: Constructing meaning from instructional messages — explaining ideas in one's own words. (Explain, summarise, classify, interpret, paraphrase)
11. Applying: Using knowledge or procedures in new situations. (Use, solve, demonstrate, calculate, execute)
12. Analysing: Breaking material into constituent parts and determining how they relate to each other and to an overall structure. (Analyse, differentiate, organise, attribute, compare)
13. Evaluating: Making judgements based on criteria and standards. (Evaluate, judge, critique, defend, justify)
14. Creating: Putting elements together to form a coherent or functional whole; reorganising elements into a new pattern or structure. (Design, construct, produce, plan, compose)

The revised taxonomy adds a second dimension — the Knowledge Dimension — distinguishing between Factual knowledge (specific facts and elements), Conceptual knowledge (interrelationships among elements), Procedural knowledge (methods and skills), and Metacognitive knowledge (knowledge of cognition in general and awareness of one's own cognition).

Bloom's taxonomy serves planning in three ways: it helps teachers write objectives at appropriate cognitive levels; it supports the design of learning activities that develop thinking at those levels; and it guides the design of assessments that genuinely measure the intended depth of understanding.

2.3 Writing SMART Objectives

A widely used framework for writing clear learning objectives is the SMART criteria, adapted for educational planning:

- **Specific:** The objective states precisely what the student will know or be able to do. Not 'understand fractions' but 'explain the relationship between a fraction and its equivalent decimal representation'.
- **Measurable:** The objective includes or implies observable evidence of learning. Not 'appreciate poetry' but 'analyse the use of imagery in a poem and explain how it contributes to the poem's meaning'.
- **Achievable:** The objective is appropriately challenging — within the ZPD of the learners — neither trivially easy nor impossibly remote.
- **Relevant:** The objective connects to broader curriculum goals, to students' lives, or to subsequent learning. Students should be able to understand why this learning matters.
- **Time-bound:** The objective specifies when the learning will be achieved — by the end of this lesson, this unit, this term.

The language of objectives matters. Action verbs drawn from Bloom's taxonomy — analyse, evaluate, construct, compare, justify — communicate the intended depth of learning more precisely than vague verbs like understand, know, or appreciate, which are both cognitively ambiguous and unobservable.

2.4 Learning Intentions and Success Criteria

John Hattie and Helen Timperley's research on feedback and Shirley Clarke's work on formative assessment have extended the concept of learning objectives into the classroom through the related concepts of Learning Intentions and Success Criteria.

A Learning Intention states what the lesson is about in language accessible to students: 'We are learning to identify the causes of World War One and explain how they are connected.' A Success Criterion describes what success looks like — how both teacher and student will know when the intention has been achieved: 'I can name at least three causes of World War One and explain, with evidence, how one cause led to another.'

Research shows that when students genuinely understand and internalise learning intentions and success criteria, they become self-assessing learners — able to monitor their own progress, identify gaps in their understanding, and seek the help they need. This is the highest pedagogical aspiration of objective-setting: not merely guiding the teacher's instruction but developing the learner's agency.

PART THREE: FRAMEWORKS FOR LESSON AND UNIT PLANNING

3.1 Backward Design: Understanding by Design

The most influential framework for unit and curriculum planning in contemporary education is Understanding by Design (UbD), developed by Grant Wiggins and Jay McTighe (1998, 2005). UbD's central insight — radical in its simplicity — is that planning should begin with the end in mind: teachers should design learning experiences by first identifying the desired results, then determining the acceptable evidence of learning, and only then designing the learning experiences and instruction.

This backward design process unfolds in three stages:

15. Stage 1 — Identify Desired Results: What should students know, understand, and be able to do? What enduring understandings — the big ideas that transfer beyond the unit — do we want students to develop? What essential questions will frame inquiry throughout the unit?
16. Stage 2 — Determine Acceptable Evidence: How will we know if students have achieved the desired results? What performance tasks will require students to apply their understanding in meaningful contexts? What other evidence — quizzes, observations, homework, discussions — will inform our judgment?
17. Stage 3 — Plan Learning Experiences and Instruction: What sequence of teaching and learning experiences will equip students to develop and demonstrate the desired understandings? What knowledge and skills will students need? What activities, resources, and direct instruction will best support the learning?

Wiggins and McTighe contrast UbD with two common planning failures: 'coverage' (moving through content without focusing on understanding) and 'activity-oriented teaching' (designing engaging activities without a clear sense of what learning they are intended to produce). UbD insists that activities are means, not ends — means to the end of deep, transferable understanding.

"The greatest enemy of understanding is coverage." — Grant Wiggins & Jay McTighe

3.2 The WHERETO Framework

Within UbD, Wiggins and McTighe offer the WHERETO framework as a guide to designing the learning sequence within a unit. Each letter represents a key element of effective instructional design:

- W — Where are we going and Why? Help students understand the unit's goals, the essential questions, and the tasks they will be working toward.
- H — Hook and Hold. Engage students' interest and curiosity from the outset. Create a 'need to know' that motivates sustained inquiry.
- E — Equip and Experience. Provide the instruction, resources, and experiences students need to develop the targeted understandings and skills.
- R — Rethink, Reflect, Revise. Build in opportunities for students to reconsider their initial thinking, reflect on their learning, and revise their work in response to feedback.
- E — Evaluate. Give students opportunities to self-assess and to receive formal and informal feedback on their progress.
- T — Tailor. Adapt the sequence to meet the diverse needs, interests, and readiness levels of individual learners.
- O — Organise. Sequence the learning experiences for maximum engagement, coherence, and effectiveness.

3.3 The Five-Part Lesson Plan

For individual lesson planning, the most widely taught and researched structure is the five-part lesson plan, variations of which appear across national teacher education programmes:

Part 1: Starter / Activating Prior Knowledge (5–10 minutes)

The lesson opens with a purposeful activity that activates students' relevant prior knowledge, focuses their attention, and connects the new learning to what they already know. This might be a brief retrieval practice activity (recalling key points from the previous lesson), a provocative question, a short stimulus (image, video clip, data set), or a low-stakes quiz. The starter is not a warm-up exercise disconnected from the lesson; it is the first step in the lesson's cognitive journey.

Part 2: Direct Instruction / New Learning (10–20 minutes)

The teacher presents new information, concepts, or procedures using clear explanation, modelling, and worked examples. This phase follows the principles of explicit instruction: presenting material in small, logical steps; checking for understanding frequently; using visual representations alongside verbal explanation; and connecting new content explicitly to the prior knowledge activated in the starter.

Part 3: Guided Practice (10–15 minutes)

Students practise the new learning with teacher support. The teacher circulates, observes, and provides immediate corrective feedback. Guided practice may be individual, paired, or small-group. It is designed to be challenging enough to require thinking but supported enough to prevent persistent error — the pedagogical space of Vygotsky's ZPD.

Part 4: Independent Practice / Application (10–20 minutes)

Students apply their learning independently or in structured groups, extending it to new contexts, combining it with previously learned content, or engaging in more complex, open-ended tasks. This phase is where higher-order thinking — analysis, evaluation, creation — is most likely to occur. The teacher monitors, identifies remaining misconceptions, and gathers formative assessment data.

Part 5: Closure / Consolidation (5–10 minutes)

The lesson closes with a purposeful consolidation activity: students summarise key learning, respond to an exit ticket, connect the lesson to the unit's essential question, preview the next lesson, or share one thing they learned and one question they still have. Closure is not a summary delivered by the teacher — it is a consolidation activity completed by students that simultaneously produces learning and provides the teacher with formative assessment data.

3.4 Madeline Hunter's Lesson Design Elements

Madeline Hunter's research-based lesson design model (1982) identifies seven elements of effective instruction that can be incorporated into any lesson structure:

- **Anticipatory Set:** Preparing students to learn by activating prior knowledge and focusing attention.
- **Objective and Purpose:** Communicating what students will learn and why it matters.
- **Input:** Providing the new knowledge, information, or skill the lesson aims to develop.
- **Modelling:** Demonstrating the desired skill or thinking process, making the invisible visible.
- **Checking for Understanding:** Monitoring student comprehension throughout instruction, not only at the end.
- **Guided Practice:** Structured practice under teacher supervision with corrective feedback.
- **Independent Practice:** Students practise without direct teacher support, consolidating and extending learning.

Hunter's model has been criticised for being overly prescriptive — not every lesson requires every element in sequence — but its identification of these discrete instructional functions remains highly useful for planning and self-evaluation.

3.5 The 5E Instructional Model

Originally developed for science education by Roger Bybee (1997) and widely adopted across subjects, the 5E model provides a constructivist lesson and unit structure:

18. Engage: Capture students' curiosity and connect new learning to prior knowledge through a provocative question, discrepant event, or scenario.
19. Explore: Students investigate the central concept or phenomenon through hands-on, inquiry-based activities before receiving formal instruction.
20. Explain: The teacher provides direct instruction to clarify concepts, introduce vocabulary, and address misconceptions revealed during exploration.
21. Elaborate: Students apply their understanding to new contexts, extending and deepening their learning.
22. Evaluate: Students and teachers assess the depth of understanding achieved, using a range of formative and summative tools.

The 5E model's distinctive feature is the Explore phase preceding Explain — students encounter the phenomenon before receiving instruction, generating the curiosity and the 'need to know' that make subsequent explanation meaningful. This 'productive failure' approach, supported by research by Manu Kapur, shows that students who attempt to solve problems before instruction develop deeper conceptual understanding than those who receive instruction first.

PART FOUR: PLANNING FOR DIVERSITY, ASSESSMENT, AND FLEXIBILITY

4.1 Planning for Learner Diversity

Every classroom contains a diverse range of learners — diverse in their prior knowledge, readiness levels, learning profiles, cultural backgrounds, linguistic abilities, and motivational orientations. Planning that ignores this diversity inevitably serves some students well and others poorly. Equitable planning requires deliberate attention to diversity at every stage.

4.1.1 Differentiation in Planning

Carol Ann Tomlinson's differentiation framework calls on teachers to plan varied pathways through the same learning goals by adjusting content (what students engage with), process (how they engage with it), product (how they demonstrate learning), and the learning environment (the physical, social, and emotional conditions of learning). Differentiation is planned proactively — anticipating the range of learners in the room and designing for that range — rather than reactively improvised in the moment.

Practical differentiation strategies in planning include: tiered tasks (the same learning goal at different levels of complexity), flexible grouping (grouping students by readiness, interest, or learning profile for different activities), choice boards (offering students a structured range of ways to engage with and demonstrate learning), and scaffolded resources (graphic organisers, sentence starters, glossaries, and worked examples for students who need additional support).

4.1.2 Planning for English Language Learners

Students learning in an additional language require planned scaffolding of both language and content simultaneously. Effective planning for ELL students includes: pre-teaching key vocabulary; providing visual supports and concrete representations; building in opportunities for oral rehearsal before written production; offering texts at multiple reading levels; and creating structured opportunities for peer interaction in which language is used meaningfully.

4.1.3 Planning for Students with Special Educational Needs

Inclusive planning requires teachers to understand the specific learning profiles of students with identified special educational needs and to incorporate adjustments — in task design, resource selection, environmental arrangement, and assessment format — that allow all students to access the curriculum. Collaboration with special education colleagues, review of individual education plans (IEPs), and ongoing communication with students and families are essential components of inclusive lesson planning.

4.2 Planning Formative Assessment

Assessment should not be planned as a separate activity that occurs after teaching — it should be woven into the fabric of the lesson from the beginning. Formative assessment —

the ongoing gathering and use of evidence about student learning to adjust instruction — is most powerful when it is planned, systematic, and responsive.

Dylan Wiliam identifies five key formative assessment strategies, all of which can and should be planned explicitly:

- Clarifying and sharing learning intentions and success criteria — planned into the lesson opening and closure.
- Engineering effective classroom discussions, activities, and tasks that elicit evidence of learning — planned into the body of the lesson.
- Providing feedback that moves learning forward — planned as a response to specific evidence gathered during the lesson.
- Activating students as instructional resources for one another — planned through structured peer assessment activities.
- Activating students as owners of their own learning — planned through self-assessment tasks and metacognitive reflection.

Exit tickets — brief, focused tasks completed individually at the end of a lesson that require students to demonstrate the lesson's key learning — are among the most efficient and informative formative assessment tools. Planning the exit ticket before the lesson begins is a powerful discipline: it forces the teacher to ask, 'What exactly do I want students to be able to do by the end of this lesson?' — and then to design the lesson to achieve that specific outcome.

4.3 Flexible Planning: The Plan as Hypothesis

Experienced teachers understand that a lesson plan is a professional hypothesis, not a contract. The plan embodies a set of predictions: that students will have certain prior knowledge, that a particular explanation will produce understanding, that an activity will generate productive thinking. All of these predictions may be wrong — and the evidence of what is actually happening in the classroom provides constant feedback about which predictions are holding and which need revision.

Flexibility in planning means: building in decision points where the teacher assesses progress before deciding whether to advance, reteach, or extend; having planned alternatives ready — a more scaffolded version of an activity for those who are struggling,

a more challenging extension for those who are ready; and developing the professional confidence to depart from the plan when the evidence demands it.

This flexibility is not a sign of poor planning — it is a sign of excellent planning combined with expert professional judgment. The teacher who clings rigidly to a plan in the face of clear evidence that students are lost or bored is allowing the plan to serve its own existence rather than the students' learning.

4.4 Reflective Planning: The Planning Cycle

Effective planning is not a one-time event but a continuous cycle of plan, teach, assess, reflect, and replan. After each lesson, the reflective teacher asks: What did students actually learn — as evidenced by what they said, wrote, and did? Where were the gaps, misconceptions, and confusions? What worked — and why? What would I do differently — and how? What does this tell me about what to plan next?

Keeping a reflective teaching journal, annotating lesson plans with post-lesson notes, reviewing student work as a planning tool, and engaging in collaborative planning with colleagues (as in Professional Learning Communities) all support the development of the reflective planning cycle. Over time, this cycle is the engine of professional growth: each plan better than the last because each is informed by the evidence of what the previous plan produced.

PART FIVE: PRACTICAL PLANNING TOOLS AND PROFESSIONAL HABITS

5.1 Planning Tools

5.1.1 Curriculum Maps

A curriculum map is a visual representation of an entire year's — or programme's — content, skills, assessments, and connections. It can be organised by week, month, or term. Curriculum maps serve multiple purposes: they ensure coverage and coherence; they make connections between units visible; they support communication with students, parents, and colleagues; and they provide a basis for reflection and revision between years.

5.1.2 Unit Planning Templates

A unit planning template typically includes: unit title and duration; essential questions and enduring understandings; learning objectives aligned to curriculum standards; key vocabulary and concepts; a sequence of lessons with estimated timings; planned assessments (both formative and summative); resources and materials; and differentiation strategies. The template is a scaffold for professional thinking, not a bureaucratic requirement; it should serve the teacher, not constrain them.

5.1.3 Lesson Plan Templates

A lesson plan template structures the teacher's thinking about a single lesson. Effective templates prompt the teacher to record: learning intentions and success criteria; prior knowledge to activate; new content and key questions; learning activities with estimated timings; resources required; differentiation strategies; formative assessment tools; and post-lesson reflection notes. The best templates are simple enough to complete efficiently and rich enough to capture the professional thinking that underpins excellent teaching.

5.1.4 Digital Planning Tools

A wide range of digital tools now support planning at all levels: curriculum mapping software (Atlas, Curriculum Trak), collaborative planning platforms (Google Docs, Microsoft OneNote, Notion), lesson planning apps (Planbook, Common Curriculum), and resource repositories (Teachers Pay Teachers, TES Resources, Khan Academy). These tools can increase efficiency and support collaboration, but they do not replace the professional thinking they are designed to support. A beautiful digital lesson plan written without genuine pedagogical intentionality is no better than a blank sheet of paper.

5.2 Habits of Effective Planners

Research on expert teachers consistently identifies a set of professional habits that distinguish excellent planners from adequate ones:

- They plan with the learner in mind first, and the content second — always asking 'What does this particular group of students need?' before 'What am I going to teach?'
- They plan backwards from assessment — designing the evidence of learning before designing the learning activities.

- They plan at multiple levels simultaneously — aware of how today's lesson fits into this week's unit, this term's programme, and this year's curriculum.
- They anticipate misconceptions — thinking carefully about where students are likely to struggle and planning specifically to address those struggles.
- They plan for every minute — not because they will follow the plan minute-by-minute, but because unplanned time is the enemy of learning.
- They collaborate with colleagues — sharing plans, discussing approaches, and learning from each other's expertise.
- They reflect after every lesson — using what they observed to improve their next plan.
- They revisit and revise their plans — treating the curriculum map and unit plan as living documents, not fixed artefacts.

5.3 Planning Across Career Stages

The nature and demands of planning change significantly across a teacher's career. Beginning teachers typically need detailed, comprehensive lesson plans that specify every activity, question, and transition — the plan provides a cognitive scaffold that compensates for the limited automaticity of novice practice. As teachers develop expertise, the explicit plan becomes less elaborate but the underlying professional thinking becomes richer, faster, and more flexible.

Expert teachers often report planning mentally, in conversations with colleagues, or through brief annotations on a curriculum map. This apparent reduction in planning effort reflects not less thinking but more efficient thinking — the professional knowledge that enables rapid, high-quality planning decisions has been internalised through thousands of planning cycles. Beginning teachers who observe experienced colleagues' apparently effortless planning and assume they can dispense with detailed planning prematurely make a serious error — the expert's efficiency is the product of sustained, deliberate, detailed planning practice over years.

CONCLUSION

Planning is the most consequential intellectual work that teachers do. It is where professional knowledge — of subject matter, of learners, of pedagogy, of assessment — is transformed into the designed environments and experiences through which students learn. It is where equity is either built in or inadvertently excluded. It is where the gap between curriculum intention and classroom reality is bridged — or left to chance.

This lecture has traced planning from its broadest level — curriculum mapping across a year — to its finest level — the minute-by-minute structure of a single lesson. It has introduced the major frameworks that guide effective planning — Bloom's taxonomy, backward design, the five-part lesson, the 5E model — and has connected each to the research evidence that supports it. It has examined planning for diversity, planning for formative assessment, and the reflective planning cycle that drives professional growth.

The invitation now is to treat planning not as a chore to be completed before the real work of teaching begins, but as the real work itself — the deepest and most consequential expression of professional judgment that teaching demands. A teacher who plans well teaches well. A teacher who teaches well, reflects well. And a teacher who reflects well plans better tomorrow than they did today.

| *"Plans are nothing; planning is everything." — Dwight D. Eisenhower*

RECOMMENDED FURTHER READING

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— End of Lecture —